POLSC 343: American Foreign Policy

Study Guide—Exam 1: Historical Background (Weeks 1–4)

Covers: US Foreign Policy in the 19th Century · US Foreign Policy in the 20th Century · The Cold War and Domestic Politics

How to Use This Guide

Exam 1 is a closed-book, closed-note, in-class exam covering the historical background material from Weeks 1–4.

This guide is organized to move from the concrete to the analytic. Sections 1–6 track the lectures. Section 7 covers the readings. Sections 8–10 give you a glossary, a timeline, and practice questions. A strong answer on this exam does not simply recall that something happened; it explains why it happened and what it tells us about the forces that shape American foreign policy. Use the "Think About" prompts throughout to practice that move.

> The four organizing questions for the whole unit: (1) What are the major periods in US foreign policy, and what divides each one? (2) What is continuous across periods, and what genuinely changes? (3) How do we reconcile US expansion and Cold War practice with American rhetoric about democracy, self-determination, and human rights? (4) How does popular historical memory of these periods shape policy debate today?

1. Periodization: The Four Eras

The course divides US foreign policy into four periods. Be able to name them, date them, and characterize each in a sentence.

Period	Dates	Defining Character
Early Years	1783–1870	A weak, territorially small, regionally focused state. Continental expansion, no permanent alliances, tiny military, low trade.
Transitional Period	1870–1945	Rapid economic growth, overseas expansion, two world wars, and an unresolved fight over whether the US should lead the international system.
Hegemonic Period	1945–2025	Preponderance of global power. Permanent alliances, standing forces abroad, high defense spending, and a US-built rules-based order.
Post-Hegemonic Period	2025–future	An open question: what follows the erosion of the postwar order?

Baseline facts about the early period (the "Basics" slides)

- The US was territorially much smaller, and the international system contained far fewer states (Correlates of War system data). The overriding point: the US is not the major power or superpower it becomes in the 20th century. It is small and vulnerable.
- Military personnel as a share of total population were very low until the Cold War—the permanent large military is a post-1945 phenomenon, not an American tradition.
- The US had no alliances with any state until the 20th century.
- Defense expenditures were low; US and global trade grows, but remained low through roughly the 1970s.

- Militarized Interstate Dispute (MID) involvement by the US rises noticeably over time—the pattern itself is evidence about changing US behavior. But note: even while small and weak, the US was engaging militarily throughout the world. We tend to think of interventionism as a Cold War issue; it is not.
- Read the MID data with a caveat. The measure counts disputes between nation-states, which does not capture the full range of actors against whom the US used force. Native American nations, the Barbary pirates, and similar groups fall outside it, so the data undercount US uses of force.
- The maps make a related point: throughout the 1800s, US foreign policy is fundamentally about westward expansion. And this is not territory the US controls—it is competing for it against British, French, Spanish, eventually Mexican, and Native American groups.

> **THINK ABOUT**
> Why does the professor open with descriptive data (maps, spending, personnel, MIDs) before any argument? Three reasons given in lecture: to establish descriptive accuracy, to test whether reality matches our assumptions, and to identify or rule out potential causal factors.

The Army in the nineteenth century

- The founders were wary of standing armies—the theme running through Brutus X and Washington's Farewell Address. Armies were to be focused on defense, not internal policing.
- In practice, the US Army's role throughout the 1800s was heavily focused on fighting Native American groups.
- Campaign duration data make the scale clear: aside from the Global War on Terror and World War II, the "Indian Wars" are the longest collective campaigns in US Army records.

2. The Early Years (1783–1870)

2.1 Independence and Weakness

- Treaty of Paris, September 3, 1783—formally ends the war with Great Britain.
- Independence did not bring security. The US had a small population, essentially no military, and an undeveloped, undiversified economy—leaving it vulnerable to attack and economic exploitation.

Key conflicts of the era:

- Managing relations with the major European powers
- English and Spanish territories in Canada and Florida
- Territorial conflict with Native nations on the frontier
- Access to the Mississippi River
- Access to foreign markets and shipping rights

Two points the lecture stresses. First, how thoroughly alone the US was: the allies who had supported the war for independence abandoned it immediately, and France began blocking American trade. France's goal had been to hurt England, not to create a new regional power. Second, the importance of strategic choke points. Control of New Orleans was vital for moving goods from the Mississippi to global markets—the same logic that makes the Strait of Hormuz matter today.

2.2 Two Concepts You Must Define

> Mercantilism: An economic doctrine based on a belief that military power and economic influence complemented each other; applied especially to colonial empires in the sixteenth through eighteenth centuries. Mercantilist policies favored the mother country over its colonies and over its competitors. (Frieden, Lake, and Schultz, p. A-4)

> Zero-sum game: The idea that for one player or group to gain something, another player or group must lose something.

The essential point is that this is not a free-market economy and leaders did not think like free-market economists. If one state gains from trade, someone else must lose—so leaders were wary of enriching adversaries through commerce. Adam Smith and David Ricardo change this way of thinking, but it takes decades, arguably centuries.

> **THINK ABOUT**
> Mercantilism and zero-sum thinking are not just 18th-century artifacts. Ask yourself where you see the same logic in contemporary trade and tariff debates—the lecture returns to exactly this point at the very end of the unit.

2.3 Washington's Farewell Address

> The great rule of conduct for us, in regard to foreign nations, is, in extending our commercial relations, to have with them as little political connexion as possible. So far as we have already formed engagements, let them be fulfilled with perfect good faith. Here let us stop.

Note what the Address actually says. Washington does not call for isolation—the lecture is explicit that "isolation" is a bad term here. He calls for trade and commercial exchange while remaining wary of political entanglements. This distinction is the single most commonly misread point in the document, and it resurfaces in every later debate over expansion, the League of Nations, and NATO, where opponents of commitment invoke Washington.

- The wariness ran deep and showed up in small things. Americans were long suspicious of European court politics, and the title of "ambassador" was avoided for decades—"minister" was the highest diplomatic rank the US would use—because Americans were self-consciously rejecting old monarchical systems and traditions.

Hamilton and Jefferson: factions arrive anyway

- Despite Washington's warnings about faction, factional disputes emerge immediately. Hamilton and Jefferson stand in for very different regional and factional visions of how the country should develop.
- Hamilton: industrialization and manufacturing, a strong central government, and strong monetary and fiscal capacity.
- Jefferson: a more agrarian society and a weaker central government.
- But Jefferson is the one who dramatically expands executive power—deploying military personnel against the Barbary pirates and making the Louisiana Purchase. He is the lecture's example of how a person's stated ideals and principles can collide with the material interests of the country and the demands of the office they hold.

2.4 The Louisiana Purchase and the War of 1812

- France had ambitions to reconquer parts of North America, but the Haitian slave revolt of the 1790s and Napoleon's position in Europe made this impossible.
- The Louisiana Purchase arose from Napoleon's need to finance his European wars. Price: $15 million (roughly $229 million in today's dollars).
- Robert Livingston, US minister to France, was charged with negotiating the purchase of New Orleans and West Florida. He negotiated the entire Louisiana Territory instead—exceeding his authority. Jefferson chose to ask forgiveness rather than permission from Congress.
- The War of 1812 is best understood as a side conflict of the Napoleonic Wars. British forces invaded Washington, D.C. and burned the White House in 1814.
- Jefferson also dispatched Marines alongside mercenaries and local fighters against the Barbary pirates.
- Net effect of the period: the US solidifies its status as a regional power and largely secures its borders.

> **THINK ABOUT**
> Livingston's improvisation and Commodore Catesby's capture of Monterey (below) make the same point from opposite directions. Delegating authority to agents far from Washington produces both opportunity and accident. This is an early version of a principal-agent problem you will meet again in the bureaucracy and military units of the course.

2.5 The Monroe Doctrine (1823)

- Laid out by President James Monroe in 1823.
- A response to European efforts to re-establish monarchical governments or colonies in the Western Hemisphere, and spurred by conflict with Russia over northwestern territories.
- Asserts that the US will continue to respect the sovereignty of European governments and will not interfere with existing colonies.
- Declares that any attempt by European governments to extend their system into the hemisphere will be regarded as a threat to US security and interests.
- Enforcement problem: this was not initially something the US could enforce. It lacked the navy to do anything about it for another century, and relied substantially on the British navy instead.

> **THINK ABOUT**
> The Monroe Doctrine gets cited by BOTH supporters and opponents of overseas expansion later in the century. Be ready to explain how the same document supports opposite conclusions—as a mandate for hemispheric primacy, or as a commitment to stay out of other hemispheres.

2.6 Slavery and Foreign Relations

Slavery is not a separate "domestic" story running alongside foreign policy—it is woven directly into it.

- Britain abolished the slave trade within the Empire in 1807 (Slave Trade Act); the US outlawed the international slave trade in 1808.
- Most enslaved people in the British Empire were not freed until the Slavery Abolition Act of 1833 and the years following.
- British enforcement produced conflict with the United States: slavers raised the US flag to evade inspection, and the Royal Navy began boarding US-flagged ships at sea.

- Congress relaxed restrictions on slavery in 1804 and 1805 to encourage migration into the Louisiana Purchase and to head off settler threats to appeal to Napoleon.
- The Creole case (1841): a US ship carrying 135 enslaved people toward New Orleans; 18 revolted, one slave trader and one enslaved person died, and the ship was directed to the British Bahamas where those aboard were freed. With no extradition agreement in place, incidents like this strained US–British relations.
- Westward expansion continually reopened and intensified the domestic conflict over slavery.

This is the lecture's model case of an issue usually presented as strictly domestic that has major implications for international politics. Slavery was a source of tension between the US and Great Britain, and it was a source of tension between the US, Texas, and Mexico in the run-up to the Mexican–American War.

2.7 The Nullification Crisis (1828–1833)

- Tariffs were a central source of political conflict in the early republic—new tariffs in 1828 and 1832.
- The core dispute: tariffs for revenue versus tariffs for protection. Tariffs affect different regions and sectors differently, and the split ran along North/South lines.
- South Carolina adopted an Ordinance of Nullification in 1832, claiming a right to nullify federal laws it deemed unconstitutional (a claim courts have repeatedly rejected).
- President Jackson threatened to send troops. Congress passed a compromise tariff in 1833 lowering rates over time; South Carolina repealed the ordinance but then nullified the Force Act.

Why tariffs mattered so much: the tariff was the federal government's revenue source. There would be no income tax for another hundred years. But there is no clean line between a tariff levied for revenue and one that is punitive toward the South—which is what made the question so explosive. Another domestic conflict that is ultimately about foreign policy, since it hinges on international trade and falls hardest on the parts of the country that rely most on imported goods.

> **THINK ABOUT**
> Tariff politics is the through-line of this course. The same regional logic—who gains and who loses from openness—returns in the Cold War domestic politics lecture (Hiscox, Trubowitz, Fordham) and again in contemporary trade debates.

2.8 Border and Territorial Conflicts

The Aroostook War (the "Pork and Beans War")

- A disputed border between Maine and Canada/New Brunswick.
- Canadian loggers entered the disputed territory, angering American counterparts.
- Forces on both sides mobilized, but no actual fighting occurred—a useful reminder that militarized disputes do not always involve the actual use of force.
- It also shows that not every dispute results from deliberate state action or policy. Some arise from vague standards or laws and an angry citizenry.

Capture of Monterey (1842)

- US–Mexican tensions were already high years before war broke out.
- Commodore Thomas Catesby acted on rumors that the US and Mexico were at war and seized Monterey.
- Realizing no war existed, he apologized, returned the fort, held a banquet for the garrison, and sailed away.

- Lesson from lecture: communications are hard—the technology simply was not there to transmit information rapidly or accurately. Delegating authority to distant commanders is therefore a genuine risk: improvisation can be useful, but it can also start an international incident.

2.9 The Mexican–American War (1846–1848) and Manifest Destiny

Why the Southwest was attractive:

- California offered valuable ports for commerce with Asia.
- Texas offered new land and territory.
- Both were viewed as useful for defense against European aggression.

Sequence to know:

- Mexico achieves independence in 1821; Texas is a politically weak, sparsely populated state with a vast border and small military presence.
- Mexico initially welcomes American immigration to stabilize and control the territory. By 1835, roughly 35,000 Americans and 5,000 enslaved people had moved into Texas.
- Mexico moves to exert more control and to abolish slavery; Texas secedes and fights the Texas Revolution (1835–1836).
- Texas is initially independent. Britain and France favor this—an independent Texas checks American growth.
- In 1845 Congress admits Texas by joint resolution on a simple majority. Southern states view annexation as essential to slavery; abolitionists fear it entrenches Southern control of the federal government.

Manifest Destiny

- Term attributed to John L. O'Sullivan in 1845.
- A compact way of asserting that westward expansion was clearly and divinely mandated.
- Deployed differently by different coalitions—a slogan used to justify or rationalize a wide range of different policies tied to westward expansion, not a single coherent doctrine.

2.10 The Civil War as a Foreign Policy Event

- The North–South split ran across slavery, economics, expansion, and trade—and these were tightly interconnected, not separate disputes. The economic interests of North and South were fundamentally different.
- These divides go back to the founding. Washington's Farewell Address specifically warns that factions can arise along geographic lines, and calls out North and South, as well as interior and coasts, by name.
- European attitudes were mixed: opposition to slavery pulled one way, the desire for a weak America pulled the other.
- Some British politicians supported the North; many favored the South in order to keep the United States divided.
- A weakened United States posed less of a threat to British hegemony, and independent Southern states would shift international trade in Britain's favor.
- Note the structure of the British problem: they had to balance anti-slavery principles against their interest in seeing the US weakened. Ideals running up against interests is a pattern you should be able to spot repeatedly across this unit.

3. The Transitional Period (1870–1945)

3.1 Emergence as a Major Power

- The US emerges from the Civil War as a major power; its economy grows rapidly and surpasses Great Britain somewhere in the 1870s.
- Policymakers begin thinking seriously about the US role in the wider world, and attention turns to acquiring overseas territories—that is, colonies.
- The Turner thesis speaks directly to this moment. If the frontier explains American development and the frontier is now closed, what comes next? Can colonies fill the gap? Should the US pursue empire? These are live questions in the 1890s, not retrospective ones.
- Technological change matters here. Ironclads revolutionize naval warfare, marking a decisive turn from sail-powered vessels to steam-powered ironclads. Steam had been used earlier, but it took several decades to become widespread.

The spending shift, and why it leads to overseas bases

- The Civil War and the Spanish–American War together mark a change in military spending. Budget surpluses in this era meant the government could finance more projects, and some of this went to veterans' benefits.
- The Spanish–American War and the occupation of new territories meant more spending on the Navy and Army to hold those territories and secure ocean routes.
- And the move to steam and ironclads meant countries now needed sources of fuel, plus fueling and repair depots overseas—which means overseas military basing. The technology drives the footprint.

3.2 The Spanish–American War (1898) and the Great Debate

- Beginning in the 1890s the US constructs a battleship fleet and begins projecting power outward.
- Spain loses; the US acquires the Philippines, Guam, Puerto Rico, and Cuba (in a qualified sense—Guantanamo Bay).
- Hawaii is annexed in July 1898, driven by its strategic position in the Pacific and fears that a rising Japan would take it.
- Other territories follow as indirect consequences (for example Naval Station Tutuila / American Samoa).

The great debate of the day—note that several arguments appear on BOTH lists:

Supporters of expansion cite	Opponents of expansion cite
Need for a strong navy	History
Economic benefits and secure trade markets	Washington's Farewell Address
National pride	Costs of empire
The Monroe Doctrine	The Monroe Doctrine
Religion	Religion

The debate was genuinely contested, and legislators were strategic in their attempts to promote or prevent greater overseas activism. One example of this is ship design. Some supported more military spending but wanted to steer the US toward monitor-style vessels—ships that protect the coast while making it effectively impossible to venture abroad and intervene. Others wanted a genuine blue-water navy. The kind of navy you build determines the kind of foreign policy you can have. This touches on issues of force structure that we come back to when we talk about the

use of military force in the Cold War and Post-Cold War periods. Force structure pertains to the kind of military you build and how you invest resources.

> **THINK ABOUT**
> This table is an exam question waiting to happen. Be able to explain how the Monroe Doctrine and the religious argument were each turned to opposite purposes—and how the monitor-versus-blue-water navy debate demonstrates the role that technology played in enabling and/or constraining certain foreign policy options.

3.3 Latin America: Dollar Diplomacy and the Roosevelt Corollary

- The US begins more actively enforcing the Monroe Doctrine in the Western Hemisphere through the Roosevelt Corollary.
- Roosevelt asserted the US would intervene "as a last resort" to ensure Latin American countries met their financial and debt obligations, or did nothing to invite European intervention in the hemisphere.
- In practice: intervention in Nicaragua, the Dominican Republic, and Haiti—Marines deployed, customs houses seized, and teams of economists sent to place countries on the gold standard.

3.4 World War I

US entry (1917): initially neutral; German submarine warfare targeting American merchant shipping, the sinking of the Lusitania, and a deepening stalemate in Europe pull the US in.

> A methodological point the lecture makes here, and one worth carrying through the whole course: events described as the "spark" that started a war are usually significant moments against a more general backdrop of escalation, not sole causes in themselves. The assassination of Archduke Franz Ferdinand was used to rationalize war, but it took a long time after his death for Austria to move. The Lusitania was sunk, but it took a long time after that for Wilson to declare war. Be suspicious of single-event explanations.

Consequences of the war—know this list:

- Breakdown of the old imperial powers: the Austro-Hungarian Empire collapses, the Ottoman Empire collapses, the German Empire is defeated.
- Creation of several new states; nationalism becomes a driving force in European politics.
- Partition of the Middle East; Turkey stripped of territory and resources.
- The Russian Revolution.
- New forms of warfare emerge.
- The League of Nations is created; reparations are imposed on Germany.
- The United States rejects a global leadership role.

The war also enlarges the international system—not as sharply as World War II will, but it is a rapid increase in the number of states. And note that while the Paris peace conference was unfolding in 1919, significant fighting was still going on among various groups throughout central and eastern Europe. The peace was being written while the war had not entirely stopped. This speaks to how large conflicts like WWI often consist of a major central conflict bundled together with a number of smaller local and regional conflicts that may or may not be closely related to the central conflict that we tend to think of as defining a particular war.

3.5 Versailles, the League, and the American Rejection

- The Treaty of Versailles is often viewed as unfair or unreasonable. France aimed to punish Germany; severe reparations were imposed and industrial resources seized.
- The League of Nations was framed as a contrast to previous international orders: collective security, self-determination, and free trade.
- The US Senate rejected the Treaty of Versailles twice.

The standard story—"America turned isolationist"—is too simple.

- President Wilson (a Democrat) supported a more international role for the US.
- Many Republicans opposed the League and the treaty as written—the Irreconcilables. Henry Cabot Lodge is the figure to know here.
- But some prominent Republicans supported it—Henry Stimson is the key example, and he reappears repeatedly across this unit. Other Congressional Republicans were more supportive of other aspects of the Treaty, but opposition hinged mostly on Article X's collective security requirements.
- Debate over US involvement continued through the 1920s; Senate Republicans repeatedly objected to participating in League bodies such as the International Court of Justice.
- What drove that objection: a strong current within the Republican Party opposed multilateral engagement that would subordinate US sovereignty to international bodies, and was specifically wary of US military forces being committed to conflicts that might not serve American interests. That concern recurs in the NATO debate two decades later.

Lodge and Stimson: two Republican wings, and one personal grudge

- Henry Cabot Lodge was strongly opposed to multilateralism and wary of any loss of US sovereignty. He also personally hated Woodrow Wilson.
- The lecture draws a methodological lesson from this. Political scientists look for generalizable explanations of events, but specific cases sometimes hinge on individual personalities and relationships.
- Stimson represented a different wing of the party—more pro-internationalist. Theodore Roosevelt and Elihu Root were Republicans firmly in favor of arbitration and of applying legal mechanisms to international problems. Stimson was a protégé of theirs.
- The structural point: individuals who control key positions, as Lodge controlled the Senate Foreign Relations Committee, are in a position to determine which policies get advanced and which never get a hearing. Preferences matter, but so does who holds the gavel. You can think of this as another type of strategic choke point, but an institutional one.

3.6 The Interwar Period (roughly 1919–1940)

- Heavy emphasis on commercial engagement—until 1929.
- Emphasis on arms control conferences: the Washington Naval Conference (1922, the Five Power Treaty) and the London Naval Conference (1930). Both focused on limiting the number and total tonnage of ships, motivated by fear of repeating the pre-WWI naval arms race.
- But little engagement with multilateral institutions or the subsidiary organizations of the League.

This is the nuanced point, and the naval conferences are the cleanest illustration of it: they show the US pursuing international engagement while avoiding multilateral commitments. The interwar US was commercially engaged and active in arms control, while refusing institutional political commitment. "Isolationism" is a poor label for it.

3.7 The Great Depression

- The stock market crashes on October 29, 1929, sparking a worldwide depression.
- Many countries turn to protectionism and autarky.
- Economic crisis exacerbates other crises—this is the causal claim postwar policymakers will draw on when they build an open economic order.
- Note for the domestic politics lecture: World War II did not by itself end the Depression. Between 1936 and 1938 federal spending was cut roughly 20% in nominal terms, stunting recovery and pushing the country back into recession.
- The US had in fact started to recover from the Depression before the war. The lecture flags the belief that the war got the US out of the Depression as both inaccurate and dangerous—dangerous because it encourages the idea that war is a way to stimulate economic growth.
- The Depression also built the social welfare programs we now take for granted, and that inheritance shapes the postwar programs directly: the Marshall Plan and foreign aid were inspired by the social safety nets that came out of the Depression.

3.8 The Road to World War II

Germany

- Germany was recovering from its early economic troubles but was hit hard by the Depression. Radical parties benefited from economic crisis; Hitler comes to power in 1933.
- Germany, Italy, and Japan sign a series of treaties between 1936 and 1937.
- March 1938: Germany annexes Austria. September 1938: Germany annexes the Sudetenland.

Steps to war in Europe

- September 1, 1939—Germany invades Poland; Britain and France declare war by day's end.
- By July 1940 France falls; the Battle of Britain begins in August 1940.

Japan and the Asia-Pacific

- The Japanese military occupied Manchuria in 1931 and extended control over China through the early 1940s.
- Japan sought secure access to materials such as oil and rubber.
- Expansion brought Japan into conflict with Western powers across the Pacific.

> **THINK ABOUT**
> The lecture frames all of this as effectively a new wave of colonialism and imperialism: Germany taking territory in central and eastern Europe, Italy in Africa, Japan in the Pacific—in each case partly to secure resources.

3.9 The US in the 1930s: Neutrality and Its Erosion

- Congress passes a series of Neutrality Acts, 1935–1939, banning arms exports to belligerents and loans to countries at war.
- Cash and Carry (Neutrality Act of 1937, expanded 1939): belligerents could purchase goods provided they paid up front and transported the goods themselves—a concession to FDR, who sought to aid the Allies.
- Destroyers for Bases (September 1940): 50 destroyers to Britain in exchange for US land rights in British territories.

- Lend-Lease (March 1941): the US would "lend" war materiel to other nations. No one seriously expected it back.
- Henry Stimson works to build support for Roosevelt's mobilization efforts—the same Republican internationalist who backed the League, and who will run the War Department through World War II.
- December 7, 1941—Pearl Harbor. December 8, 1941—Japanese bombing of US positions in the Philippines begins.

> **THINK ABOUT**
> Trace the sequence Neutrality Acts → Cash and Carry → Destroyers for Bases → Lend-Lease. It is a textbook case of an executive stretching a restrictive legislative framework, and it sets up the Congress-and-presidency material later in the course.

4. From World War to Cold War

4.1 Truman, the Bomb, and the Soviet Shadow

- President Roosevelt dies April 12, 1945. Truman takes office and is only then informed of the Manhattan Project. He has to decide whether or not, and how, he might use the bomb.
- May 8, 1945: Nazi Germany surrenders. The war in the Pacific continues.

Three options were debated for ending the Pacific war: invasion, demonstration, or bombing.

- Many argued an invasion would be too costly.
- The arsenal was initially limited, so a demonstration would "waste" a scarce weapon—and there was a risk the demonstration would fail, undermining the US bargaining position.
- Crucially, the decision was not only about the US and Japan. It was also motivated by the USSR: the US wanted to end the war quickly to limit Soviet involvement in the Pacific.

Henry Stimson

- Secretary of War under Roosevelt and Truman; previously Secretary of War under Taft, Secretary of State under Hoover, and Governor-General of the Philippines.
- Opposed calls for a demonstration; influential in selecting targets, and successfully removed Kyoto from the target list on grounds of cultural significance and likely effect on Japanese public opinion.
- Also suggested sharing nuclear technology with the USSR as a way of deflating postwar tensions.
- Dates: Hiroshima, August 6, 1945. Nagasaki, August 9, 1945. Japanese surrender, August 14, 1945.
- Keep the scale in perspective: today's nuclear weapons are far more devastating than these. Multiple Independently Targetable Reentry Vehicles (MIRVs) place several warheads on a single missile, each with far more destructive capacity than the 1945 bombs.

4.2 The Emerging Divide

US–Soviet tension predates World War II. Sources of mistrust:

- Longstanding US ideological opposition to communism, including a long history of domestic government action against communists.
- US troops invaded Russia in 1918 in an attempt to reverse the Russian Revolution.
- The second front: Soviets wanted the US and UK to launch an invasion in the west to take pressure off Soviets. Stalin suspected the US and UK were content to let the USSR and Germany bleed each other and were delaying.

- The Molotov–Ribbentrop (Nazi–Soviet) Pact of 1939 divided Eastern Europe between Germany and the USSR.
- The 1944 Warsaw Uprising: Soviet forces sat on the outskirts of the city while the Germans massacred Poles.
- Soviet occupation of eastern territory as the Red Army moved into Germany was extraordinarily brutal.
- The Soviets claimed they wanted secure borders against Europe—a security rationale, not only an ideological one.

Key postwar flashpoints

- Occupied territories are absorbed and become the Warsaw Pact states.
- The Percentages Agreement (Fourth Moscow Conference, 1944): Churchill and Stalin divide influence over Romania, Greece, Yugoslavia, Hungary, and Bulgaria. Roosevelt's representative was excluded and FDR protested. Churchill demanded a British sphere in Greece—a commitment that came back to bite Britain.
- Britain secretly informs the US in 1946 that it can no longer sustain aid to Greece and Turkey. Greece was fighting a civil war with communist forces on one side, and held cultural significance for western democracies.
- Stalin pressed the US for concessions in Iran and Turkey, seeking oil concessions and access to warm water ports. The Iran issue went to the Security Council in 1946—the first serious issue brought before that body. Stalin eventually withdrew.
- Occupied Germany is divided into allied occupation zones, with areas annexed by Poland and the USSR, and the Saar Protectorate effectively under French control until reintegration in 1957. The occupation map is also a good illustration of burden sharing in coalition warfare—each ally took responsibility for a portion of Germany, diminishing the costs of administering Germany for any one ally.

4.3 The Architecture of Containment: Four People, Four Documents

Figure	Role	Signature Contribution
Harry S. Truman	President, 1945–1953	The Truman Doctrine (March 1947 speech before Congress).
George C. Marshall	Secretary of State under Truman	The Marshall Plan / European Recovery Program (June 1947 Harvard commencement address).
George F. Kennan	Director of Policy Planning; Ambassador to the USSR	The "Long Telegram" (1946) and the "X Article," The Sources of Soviet Conduct (Foreign Affairs, 1947). Father of containment.
Paul Nitze	Second Director of Policy Planning	Primary author of NSC-68 (1950).

The Truman Doctrine (1947)

- First outlined in Truman's March 1947 speech before Congress; a direct reaction to events in Greece and Turkey.
- Promises to support free peoples resisting tyrannical governments—in Truman's words, to "support free peoples who are resisting attempted subjugation by armed minorities or by outside pressures."
- Lays the foundation for economic and military aid programs that had not previously existed.
- FDR had been more optimistic about cooperation with the Soviets; Truman was more skeptical.

The Marshall Plan (1947)

- Builds on the Truman Doctrine. Europe's economy was in ruins; hunger and poverty were viewed as greater threats than direct Soviet intervention.
- Calls for massive economic assistance to rebuild Europe (the European Recovery Program).

- Marshall framed the policy as "directed not against any country or doctrine but against hunger, poverty, desperation and chaos," and insisted assistance must "provide a cure rather than a mere palliative."
- Note what the speech does not do: it never calls out the Soviets specifically. The US actually invited the Soviets to participate, and Stalin rejected the invitation.
- Catalyst for the Organization for European Economic Cooperation (OEEC), what would become today's Organization for Economic Cooperation and Development (OECD).

Kennan versus Nitze—the central intellectual dispute

- Kennan: an early skeptic of cooperation with the Soviets, but his containment emphasized NON-military resistance to Soviet expansion.
- Kennan's reasoning: Soviet rulers justified their rule on the claim that the West was trying to destroy the USSR. Using military force against them would play into that narrative and help justify the regime's harsh domestic policies.
- For exactly this reason Kennan opposed NATO—he believed an alliance excluding the USSR would give Soviet leaders the proof they needed.
- Do not overstate the dovishness. Kennan still believed the US should deter the Soviets; he simply did not think it should seek out active military conflict with them.
- Nitze: principal author of NSC-68, which set out a far more militarized approach to containment. Kennan opposed this view.
- NSC-68 is also a good example of how policies have many creators, and how the end result need not look like any single person's vision.

> **THINK ABOUT**
> "Containment" is not one single policy. Think of it as a general idea of checking Soviet efforts to increase its position, but with different possible means employed. Different visions of containment were debated during the early Cold War years, with actors like Kennan preferring a more diplomatic and economic version and other actors like Nitze calling for a more substantial military buildup and military alliances.

4.4 Events That Hardened the Divide

- 1948—Communist coup in Czechoslovakia. Czechoslovakia had retained a democratic government after the war; the foreign minister was found dead on the ground, with suspicion that communists pushed him.
- 1948—Yugoslav–Soviet split. Tito breaks with Stalin and the US begins aiding his regime. Secretary of State Dean Acheson: "he might be a son of a bitch, but he's our son of a bitch." The line shows Acheson being deliberately pragmatic—he wanted to exploit the split emerging inside the Soviet sphere.
- 1949—Communist victory in China; the Nationalists retreat to Taiwan.
- 1949—The USSR detonates an atomic bomb.
- 1950—Chinese–Soviet alliance, reinforcing the idea of a monolithic transnational communist bloc.
- 1950–1953—The Korean War, reinforcing the belief that the USSR would use force to spread communism globally.
- Communist parties gain strength in postwar Europe. The US feared communists would win power through legitimate elections and then serve Moscow.

> **THINK ABOUT**

> Hold these two facts together: the Yugoslav–Soviet split of 1948 proves the communist movement was not monolithic, and the Sino-Soviet alliance of 1950 was read as proof that it was. The communist world was in fact deeply divided, but US policymakers routinely described it as a single bloc and underestimated those divisions. Ask what that misreading cost, and why it persisted when contrary evidence was available from the start.

5. American Hegemony and the Liberal Order

5.1 Defining Hegemony

> Hegemony is a preponderance of global power.

Important qualification from lecture: a hegemon does not get everything it wants. More power helps in bargaining, but it does not eliminate bargaining.

5.2 Three Goals, Three Pillars

The US emerged from World War II with unparalleled economic and military power. Europe did not. US foreign policy focused on three goals:

1. Checking Soviet expansion
2. Promoting recovery of war-torn areas
3. Promoting greater global integration

The integration goal is a reaction to World War I and to Western liberal political thought—Adam Smith, Immanuel Kant. The first goal, checking Soviet expansion, rests on a concept you need to be able to define precisely:

> Deterrence: trying to discourage another actor from taking certain actions by making the negative consequences of those actions clear.

- The critical qualifier is credibility. The threat and its consequences have to be believable. The opponent must believe the threatener will actually follow through—or believe there is some chance the consequences occur regardless of the threatening state's willingness to carry them out.
- Thomas Schelling calls this second possibility the "threat that leaves something to chance." A threat can work precisely because events might escape anyone's control once set in motion.

> **THINK ABOUT**
> Deterrence is the concept that makes the rest of the Cold War legible. Nuclear arsenals, forward-deployed troops, and alliance commitments are all, in part, credibility-generating devices. When you meet a Cold War policy on the exam, ask what it was making credible and to whom.

The order it built—"liberal hegemonic" order, or "liberal internationalism"—rested on three pillars. Note that "liberal" here means classical liberalism (Adam Smith, Immanuel Kant), not the contemporary US partisan sense. That's something very different.

Pillar	Purpose	Institutions
Security	Deter Soviet expansion; reassure allies; manage intra-European rivalry	NATO, CENTO, SEATO, the UN
Diplomacy and governance	Establish standards and principles for the postwar world; provide a forum for dispute resolution; determine the fate of colonial territories	UN and subsidiary bodies—IAEA, WHO, UN Human Rights Council
Economic	Promote integration, remove barriers to trade and investment, prevent a return to autarky	Bretton Woods system—GATT (WTO from 1995), World Bank, IMF

What the order looked like in principle

- US leadership—but with constraints. John Ikenberry's argument: the US had to constrain its own behavior to enjoy the long-term benefits of the order it was building. Acting unilaterally would provoke backlash and collapse the order; buy-in and legitimacy mattered.
- Primacy of a rules-based system of global governance, in contrast to the pure balance-of-power politics that preceded it. Rules were more formally defined.
- Multilateral cooperation in both economic and security affairs.
- Note that this was not the only vision on offer. FDR's "Four Policemen" (US, Britain, USSR, China) would have emphasized great-power leadership within spheres of influence.
- US leaders insisted the Europeans take the lead in forming NATO, and that the US be asked to join—partly to secure domestic support. The US was also very concerned that it would end up footing the bill, both financially and in terms of military force and action. That worry is written into the treaty and into the politics of the period.

The economic logic

- Postwar economic integration was a direct reaction to the Great Depression and the interwar move to autarky; policymakers believed autarky had caused World War II. Think Smoot–Hawley tariffs.
- It was also a reflection of classical liberal thinking. The Roosevelt and Truman administrations were staffed with people from Northeastern business and banking who believed commerce creates peace (i.e. Immanuel Kant, Adam Smith, David Ricardo).
- They also stood to gain. European economies were in ruins and the US was the only advanced industrial economy running at full steam; lowering others' trade barriers made US goods cheaper abroad.
- Foreign aid was viewed as an extension of the Western welfare state—the Marshall Plan and aid programs drew on New Deal-era ideas about social safety nets. Keep in mind how new that was: the idea that government can play an active role in alleviating suffering and improving standards of living is itself a recent development in this period.
- But foreign aid also made sense because it helped to finance US exports to Europe. European countries couldn't really pay for the things they needed to import, so the influx of US money and supplies helped to ultimately pay for other exports.

- Think of Bretton Woods as a series of institutions designed to put economic liberalization into action, but that also evolve over time in their missions. GATT promotes lower tariff barriers and becomes the WTO in 1995. The World Bank focuses on postwar reconstruction but eventually shifts to development and poverty reduction. The IMF originally managed fixed-but-adjustable exchange rates and balance-of-payments problems under a dollar pegged to gold; after the gold standard it focuses on debt management and payments crises.

5.3 What Hegemony Meant for American Foreign Policy

- A series of long-term military alliances—the first in US history.
- New economic and military aid programs.
- Building a nuclear arsenal.
- Long-term overseas military deployments.
- Sustained high levels of military spending.
- Use of military force abroad with greater regularity and intensity.
- Attention to political demands from less developed countries.
- Economic and monetary policy more tightly entwined with the rest of the world.
- Policy goals requiring international coordination—that is, multilateralism.
- Greater attention to the disparity between US domestic practice and US foreign policy rhetoric.

The last point deserves emphasis. Race relations in the US were a major focus in the run-up to the conferences that created the United Nations. Domestic groups used foreign policy statements and international institutions to call attention to domestic injustice, and international actors pointed to American racial problems to undercut US rhetoric about justice, equality, and democracy abroad. Civil rights issues became a significant Soviet propaganda point during the Cold War.

5.4 Why Others Accepted American Leadership

European considerations:

- Military weakness—an increasingly hostile USSR, exhausted Western European militaries, and capabilities that take a long time to rebuild.
- Economic weakness—economies in ruins, infrastructure and capital to re-accumulate, an inability to manufacture basic goods. US leadership in military affairs eased burdens on recovering economies.
- Intra-European competition—US involvement alleviated fears of a security dilemma, in which European countries recovering and rearming would themselves become threats to their neighbors. Reconstruction and rearmament would be uneven, and some states were more exposed to the USSR than others. The US served as a kind of referee, which mattered especially for France and Germany, whose long history of rivalry made them wary of each other.

Other countries:

- The US position on anti-imperialism, and its rhetoric on self-determination, democracy, and human rights.
- Support for particular domestic political and military factions.
- Economic and/or military assistance, and access to American markets.
- But: the legacy of Wilson's attitude during the 1919 Paris negotiations still haunted independence movements, and many were wary of US hypocrisy regarding the treatment of minorities at home.
- Other countries treated the US–Soviet rivalry as an opportunity to exploit—extracting aid, money, weapons, and market access.

5.5 The Post-Cold War Period

The Unipolar Moment

- A term describing the period immediately after the Soviet collapse, when the US was the sole remaining superpower.
- Focus shifts from superpower competition to peace enforcement, peacekeeping, conflict stabilization, and expanding trade liberalization.

The Gulf War

- Saddam Hussein invades Kuwait on August 2, 1990. Saddam used longstanding Iraqi claims that Kuwait had formerly been part of Iraq to justify aggression.
- Iraq was depleted from an eight-year war with Iran and accused Kuwait of manipulating (suppressing) oil prices.
- Controlling Kuwait would give Saddam control of 20% of world oil supplies.
- George H.W. Bush assembles a global coalition; the UN Security Council grants approval November 29, 1990; the withdrawal deadline is set for January 15, 1991.
- The US did not pursue Iraqi forces into Iraq, leaving much of Saddam's military intact, out of concern over regional power vacuums and wider conflict. Saddam used the remnants to murder thousands of Kurds and Shia Iraqis who had risen up against him.

Trade liberalization

- China begins market-oriented reforms in the 1978 and through 1980s under Deng Xiaoping who becomes paramount leader of China. This represents a major shift in Chinese policy.
- General Agreement on Tariffs and Trade (GATT) becomes the WTO in 1995.
- China joins the WTO in 2001 after 14 years of negotiations, requiring China and other members to reduce tariffs across a range of goods. But this means that other countries also have to reduce tariff barriers on goods China exports to the rest of the world.
- The lecture calls this one of the most important transitions of the post-Cold War era. Chinese membership has an enormous impact on the world economy and on the US specifically: China becomes the hub for global manufacturing of low-skill goods such as basic textiles.
- The 1990s also represents a period where broader global negotiations over trade liberalization are beginning to stall out. Particularly in areas like agriculture where developed economics are still fiercely protective. Farmers often have significant lobbying power.

September 11 and its aftermath

- 19 members of al Qaeda hijack four passenger jets; two strike the World Trade Center, one the Pentagon, one crashes in rural Pennsylvania after passengers overpower the hijackers.
- The largest single terror attack we have on record: Nearly 3,000 immediate fatalities, with thousands more injured and left with long-term health consequences.
- The Bush administration declares a "War on Terror." Invasion of Afghanistan, October 2001. Invasion of Iraq, March 2003.

The War on Terror marks a dramatic shift in US foreign policy, and you should be able to describe its shape:

- Interventionism becomes widespread. The focus on Afghanistan spreads quickly to Iraq, the broader Middle East, Central Asia, Southeast Asia, North Africa, and Sub-Saharan Africa.
- Technologies such as drones and cyberwarfare become integral to international conflict.

- The early period centers on "rogue states"—the "Axis of Evil" of Iran, Iraq, and North Korea.
- Alongside two large-scale wars, the US emphasizes counterterrorism more generally and the targeted assassination of terrorist actors.

6. The Cold War and Domestic Politics

This lecture asks a different kind of question. The hegemony lecture describes what the US built; this one asks why American domestic politics permitted it, and whether the resulting consensus really collapsed.

> Key questions: How have domestic coalitions and their preferences over foreign policy changed over time? What generated support for a more internationalist foreign policy? Does bipartisanship represent a convergence of interests, or "political will"? How have regional interests shaped preferences over the different pillars of liberal internationalism? How have the two main political parties evolved over time in terms of geographic and economic bases of support?

6.1 Historical Context: Region, Sector, and Electoral Math

The three core elements of Cold War US foreign policy were the projection of American military power, free trade and investment, and multilateral engagement. None of these was a natural position for the pre-war Republican Party.

- The Northeast was dominated by manufacturing, and manufacturing had a strong interest in protection.
- Protectionism tends to correlate with more conflictual foreign policies. Northern manufacturers used protection to keep out European imports while relying on exports to Europe; European countries retaliated with their own tariffs, and the search for markets pushed states into conflict over access. We see this in China especially.
- Shipbuilding interests, also concentrated in the Northeast, benefited from naval buildup.
- The Northeast controlled the electoral votes that decided the presidency. The 15 manufacturing states of the Northeast and Great Lakes held 214 of the 224 electoral votes needed to win in 1900, and were similarly decisive throughout 1890–1914.
- Mining and smelting in Montana and Colorado were tied into Northeastern manufacturing, giving some western states similar economic alignment to northeast states.

> **THINK ABOUT**
> The argument here is materialist: positions on foreign policy follow from where in the economy and the map a coalition sits. Hold onto this, because it is a big part of what allows the lecture to explain both the rise AND the fall of bipartisanship with a single mechanism.

6.2 The Bipartisan Consensus: What Changed?

Three categories of explanation: security factors, divided government, and economic factors.

Security factors

- World War II, and Pearl Harbor specifically, untied Roosevelt's hands.
- Several prominent Republicans rallied support for US intervention, and Roosevelt appointed high-profile Republicans to his cabinet—Henry L. Stimson as Secretary of War being the leading case.
- The eventual emergence of the Soviet threat.
- Context: the Nye Committee in the 1930s blamed Northeastern financiers for US involvement in WWI; the Neutrality Acts prohibited involvement and arms sales to belligerents; Cash and Carry (1939) and Lend-Lease progressively loosened those constraints.

Divided government

- Republicans win control of both the House and Senate in the 1946 elections—the 80th Congress.
- Divided government promoted cooperation because Republicans could block Democratic initiatives; the administration had to negotiate.
- Republicans were wary of the inflation associated with massive military spending, and of large foreign aid programs. One Republican legislator called the Marshall Plan "Operation Rathole."
- Critics cited the League of Nations and WWI as a failure of DOMESTIC politics—the failure to ratify was blamed on a lack of bipartisanship, which made bipartisanship itself a governing norm for the Cold War era.
- Arthur Vandenberg (R-MI), chair of the Senate Foreign Relations Committee during the 80th Congress, "converted" to internationalism after Pearl Harbor and was enormously influential in securing Republican support for Truman's policies.
- We can think of key positions like this as institutional choke points—specific positions that enable those who control them to exert enormous influence on policy. Not that dissimilar to geographic choke points.
- Republican preferences are visible in the design of the policies: Europeans had to ask for American help, and the NATO treaty contains "self-help" provisions, because Republicans were wary of America spending too much and doing Europeans' work on defense.
- Also relevant: low political polarization and more moderates—defined here as legislators whose ideology scores place them closer to the chamber median than to their own party's median.
- Bipartisan appointments (appointing a member of the opposition party) surged in the immediate postwar and Truman years, and were low under Eisenhower—likely because Republicans had been out of power for 20 years. But these numbers increase over the next few years.

Economic factors

- A move to free trade, driven by a change in the US position in the global economy.
- The Northeastern manufacturing sector became more competitive, especially as European economies collapsed during WWII. Republicans who had opposed free trade now supported it.
- The Democratic South benefited from the wartime military buildup, which created jobs for Democratic constituents. Roosevelt directed military bases and installations to be constructed in the South, giving a more direct economic incentive to support mobilization.
- The US position in the global economy changes, and that change reshapes domestic political alignments.
- Evidence: Hiscox (1999), "The Magic Bullet? The RTAA, Institutional Reform, and Trade Liberalization," International Organization 53(4): 669–698, shows the shift in party positions on trade around WWII.
- The mechanism is blunt: Republican manufacturing competitors abroad were, as the lecture puts it, literally bombed out of existence. That produced a sudden and dramatic change in Republican positions on trade.
- The Democratic reversal in the 1970s and 1980s has a parallel explanation. Democrats had built a base among labor in urban manufacturing centers through the 1920s and 1930s, and those industries were hit hard by trade liberalization and by recovering foreign economies. Their positions later rebound, partly due to increased emphasis on government-backed social safety nets.
- This also cuts against the standard institutional narrative that Congress ceded trade authority to the executive. What changed was interests—not the desire of members of Congress to exercise power over trade policy.

> **THINK ABOUT**

> Was Cold War bipartisanship a convergence of material interests, a genuine commitment to bipartisanship as a normative good, external security threats, some combination, or something else? The exam question in the Key Questions list asks exactly this.

6.3 The Geography of Defense Spending

This is the material mechanism underneath the whole argument, and it is worth knowing on its own terms.

- One way Roosevelt secured Democratic support for the war effort was to locate new military bases and facilities in the South.
- Bases are sticky. Once placed, they stay—which is why maps of the present-day defense footprint still reveal the structural changes made in the 1940s.
- Southern states such as Alabama, Mississippi, and Virginia show defense spending as a particularly high percentage of state GDP.
- Today defense spending is spread across a very large number of congressional districts. The political consequence: any proposed cut is likely to mobilize a dozen members of Congress whose constituents have a direct interest in defense.
- Military personnel, as opposed to spending, are far more geographically concentrated. And even those concentrations are somewhat more diffuse than the data suggest—personnel attributed to Riley County, for instance, actually spread into Pottawatomie and Geary counties.

> **THINK ABOUT**
> Notice that this converts a foreign policy question into a distributive politics question. If defense spending is a jobs program distributed across districts, then positions on military spending are not only about threat assessment—they are about economic interests.

6.4 The Domestic Tradeoff: Civil Rights and Foreign Policy

- The US sought to promote democracy abroad, much of it rooted in opposition to communism—and much of it in direct conflict with the treatment of minority Americans at home.
- Many feared US efforts to promote democracy and the rule of law would be applied unevenly across the international landscape.
- James Byrnes, Secretary of State 1945–1947, is the emblematic figure: a staunch segregationist who had served in the House, the Senate, and briefly on the Supreme Court, and who played an important role in blocking anti-lynching legislation, blocking support for Black colleges and universities, and maintaining white control of Democratic Party politics in South Carolina.
- The State Department worried that the UN Commission on Human Rights might investigate human rights abuses within the US, or compel equal protections for Black Americans and other minority groups.
- The US therefore moved immediately to weaken these institutions, seeking to limit petitions to member states only—not individuals or NGOs.
- This is exactly what happened: the National Negro Congress brought a petition to the UN on June 6, 1946 outlining the oppression of Black Americans (Anderson 2003, 80–81).
- Walter White and Thurgood Marshall of the NAACP were closely engaged in the early formulation of US human rights policy and the US posture toward the UN. Historian Carol Anderson argues that the concept of "civil rights" grew out of an effort to avoid red-baiting—the initial goal was framed more in terms of a broader global human

rights agenda. But proponents of segregation tried to associate these efforts to promote human right domestically with communism to undercut their attractiveness.

> **THINK ABOUT**
> This section is the direct setup for Dudziak. The claim is not merely that the Cold War and civil rights coincided. It is that the international context changed the incentives of US policymakers on a domestic question. As we see in other time periods, domestic politics and international politics are intertwined in very important ways.

6.5 Collapse—Or Did It?

The standard narrative holds that the bipartisan consensus collapsed because of Vietnam and the end of the Cold War.

The standard account: Vietnam

- A long and bloody war, argued to have shattered the consensus.
- Democrats and liberals become increasingly dovish; Republicans and conservatives increasingly hawkish.
- The claimed mechanism: the war was so bad, and the governing elite so badly misrepresented the public, that the old bipartisan elite gave way to partisan factions that drew opposite lessons. Republicans read defeat as a failure of resolve and an unwillingness to more fully engage American military might; Democrats read it as evidence of the limits of American military power and the importance of diplomacy.

The standard account: the end of the Cold War

- The Berlin Wall falls in 1989; the Soviet threat disappears; and with it the incentive for bipartisan cooperation.
- In this telling, bipartisanship was the product of an exogenous security threat. With the threat gone, the US reverts to partisan foreign policymaking.

The problems with these accounts

- The data do not really support it. We see steady change in partisan polarization, moderate legislators, and bipartisanship that moves independent of these key cut points.
- Domestic factors—especially partisan realignment—drive more of the behavior we observe, including the bipartisanship of presidential appointments.
- And the comparative test fails: we do not see similar surges in bipartisanship following other external security threats. If exogenous threat produced the consensus, it should have done so more than once.

An economic explanation

- Cold War economic policies were, in fact, working.
- Northeastern industry begins suffering from international competition—the very openness Republicans had come to support now hurt their old base.
- The South continued to benefit from military spending.
- Republicans increasingly find their base in the South and West—places that benefited from military spending—and they have a longer history of opposing multilateral agreements while favoring unilateralism, bilateral negotiation, and military power.
- Democrats evolve into the party of Northeastern labor and urban areas, a more diverse coalition. Their opposition to military spending is partly explained by a focus on social welfare programs and on urban labor who benefited from them; free trade hurt many in traditional manufacturing, so a shift from military to social welfare spending served them.

- The upshot: the collapse of bipartisanship is better understood as a process of evolving interests—exactly like the formation of bipartisanship before it.

> **THINK ABOUT**
> Notice the structure of this argument. It explains the rise and the fall with the same theory, whereas the conventional account needs one story (external threat) for the rise and a different story (Vietnam trauma) for the fall. Explanatory parsimony can be a good thing.

6.6 Where Things Stand Now

The lecture ends on an open question rather than a conclusion, which connects directly back to the fourth period in the course framework—the post-hegemonic period beginning around 2025.

- We do not currently know how exactly the parties will settle on these issues.
- Trump points in one direction, but may prove to be an aberration: in treating trade as zero-sum, in using tariffs as a weapon to extract concessions, and in pursuing aggressive military interventions.
- If the Republican Party has broadly come to accept these positions, we may be watching them become a new normal. But there is evidence that many Republican legislators oppose these policies.
- If most of the party rejects them, we may instead see a return to something like the George W. Bush-era Republican Party—more unilateralist, but still generally pro-engagement.

> **THINK ABOUT**
> Look at the first bullet in section 2.2 again. Treating trade as zero-sum is the mercantilist premise the course opened with, and Smith and Ricardo were supposed to have displaced it. Whether that displacement was permanent or merely a long interlude is, in effect, the question the unit ends on.

7. The Readings

Know each reading's central claim, its evidence, and how it connects to the lectures. Primary sources should be known for their arguments and their language; scholarly works for their thesis and mechanism.

7.1 Primary Sources—Weeks 1 and 2

Document	What to Know
Declaration of Independence (1776)	The stated justification for separation, and the universal language about rights that later generations—domestically and internationally—will hold the US to. Note the list of grievances is in part a foreign-policy document: trade restrictions, quartering of troops, and the use of foreign mercenaries.
Washington's Farewell Address (1796)	Commercial engagement WITHOUT political entanglement; existing engagements honored in good faith. Not a doctrine of withdrawal from the world economy. Invoked ever afterward by opponents of alliance commitments.
John Quincy Adams, Independence Day Address (1821)	"She goes not abroad, in search of monsters to destroy." The classic statement that America should be the well-wisher of freedom everywhere but the champion and vindicator only of her own—and the warning that involvement in foreign wars would change the fundamental maxims of American policy.
Anti-Federalist Papers: Brutus X	The argument against standing armies and against concentrating military power in the federal government; the danger a permanent military poses to liberty. Read it against the post-1945 emergence of exactly that permanent establishment.
Turner, "The Significance of the Frontier in American History" (1893)	The frontier thesis: that the existence of free land and its continuous recession explain American development and character. Delivered just as the frontier was declared closed—and the timing matters, since the overseas expansion debate of the 1890s follows immediately.
Wilson's Fourteen Points (1918)	Open covenants openly arrived at, freedom of the seas, removal of economic barriers, arms reduction, self-determination, and a general association of nations. The intellectual blueprint for the League—and, in modified form, for the post-1945 order that actually succeeded.

> **THINK ABOUT**
> Put Brutus X, the Farewell Address, and Adams's 1821 speech in one column, and the Fourteen Points and the postwar order in the other. Exam essays about continuity and change in US foreign policy almost always turn on this opposition.

7.2 Norris, The Enduring Struggle (2021)—Week 3 required, Week 4 discussion

- Full citation: John Norris. 2021. The Enduring Struggle: The History of the U.S. Agency for International Development and America's Uneasy Transformation of the World. Lanham, MD: Rowman & Littlefield.
- Subject: the institutional history of USAID, from its Cold War origins through its later missions.
- Connection to the lecture: the Truman Doctrine and Marshall Plan "lay the foundations for economic and military aid programs, which haven't existed before." Norris is the story of what those foundations became—an agency with a permanent institutional life and an ambiguous mandate.

- The word "uneasy" in the subtitle is the argument. Aid sits awkwardly between humanitarian purpose and strategic instrument, and that tension is structural rather than incidental. This tension between interests and ideals is a recurring theme.
- For the Week 4 discussion, be ready to speak to: whether US foreign aid is best understood as charity, as an extension of the Western welfare state or as a strategic tool of containment.

7.3 Dudziak, "Brown as a Cold War Case" (2004)—Week 4

- Full citation: Mary L. Dudziak. 2004. "Brown as a Cold War Case." The Journal of American History 91(1): 32–42.
- Core claim: Brown v. Board of Education is not only a domestic civil rights case. It must be understood in an international, Cold War context.
- Mechanism: American racial segregation was a propaganda liability. Soviet and other international actors used it to undercut US claims to lead a "free world," and US officials—including the Justice Department in its amicus filings—recognized that segregation damaged American foreign policy interests.
- This gives federal policymakers an INTERNATIONAL incentive to support desegregation that is independent of domestic moral or electoral pressure.
- Connection to the lecture: this is the same dynamic as the Byrnes material and the National Negro Congress petition of 1946—the international arena becomes a venue for domestic claims, and domestic practice becomes a foreign policy problem.

7.4 Fordham, "The Evolution of Republican and Democratic Positions on Cold War Military Spending" (2007)—Week 4

- Full citation: Benjamin O. Fordham. 2007. "The Evolution of Republican and Democratic Positions on Cold War Military Spending." Social Science History 31(4): 603–636.
- Core claim: party positions on military spending are not fixed. Republicans were NOT always the party of high defense spending—in the early Cold War they were the fiscally wary party, worried about inflation and about the cost of aid and armament.
- Mechanism: the change tracks the changing geographic and economic base of the parties. As defense spending flowed to the South and West, and as Republican electoral strength migrated there, Republican positions on military spending shifted accordingly.

7.5 Recommended Readings (Week 3)

- Kennan, "The Sources of Soviet Conduct," Foreign Affairs 25(4), 1947—the "X Article." Soviet hostility is rooted in ideology and in the internal needs of the regime; the response should be "long-term, patient but firm and vigilant containment," applied through counter-pressure at shifting points, and largely by non-military means.
- NSC-68 (United States National Security Council, 1950)—Nitze's document. A far more militarized reading of containment, calling for a large, sustained buildup of American and allied military capability. Read against Kennan to see the fork in the road.
- The Truman Doctrine (March 1947)—the speech text itself. Note the universalizing language of supporting "free peoples," and how much broader the commitment is than the Greek and Turkish situation that occasioned it.

8. Glossary of Key Terms

Term	Definition
Mercantilism	Doctrine holding that military power and economic influence complement each other; policies favor the mother country over colonies and competitors.
Zero-sum game	A situation in which one party's gain requires another party's loss.
Deterrence	Discouraging another actor from taking an action by making the negative consequences of that action clear. Requires credibility: the opponent must believe the threatener will follow through, or that the consequences may occur anyway.
Threat that leaves something to chance	Schelling's term for a threat that works because events might escape anyone's control once set in motion—credibility without a promise to deliberately follow through.
Security dilemma	A situation in which one state's efforts to make itself more secure (recovering, rearming) make its neighbors less secure. US involvement in postwar Europe was meant to defuse this among the Europeans themselves.
Burden sharing	The distribution of costs and responsibilities among allies—illustrated by the allied occupation zones in Germany, and a persistent US concern in the design of NATO.
Monitor vs. blue-water navy	Competing ship designs that encode competing foreign policies: coastal-defense monitors make overseas intervention effectively impossible, while a blue-water navy makes it possible.
Monroe Doctrine (1823)	US declaration that European attempts to extend their system into the Western Hemisphere would be treated as a threat to US security, coupled with a pledge not to interfere in existing European colonies or in Europe.
Roosevelt Corollary	Extension of the Monroe Doctrine asserting a US right to intervene in Latin America as a last resort to secure financial and debt obligations and forestall European intervention.
Dollar Diplomacy	Use of US financial and military power in Latin America and the Caribbean to secure financial stability, often via Marine deployments, seizure of customs houses, and imposed monetary reforms.
Manifest Destiny	The claim, attributed to John L. O'Sullivan (1845), that westward expansion was divinely mandated; used as a justifying slogan by varied coalitions.
Nullification	The claim that a state may void federal law it deems unconstitutional; asserted by South Carolina in 1832 over tariffs and repeatedly rejected by the courts.
Autarky	National economic self-sufficiency; the interwar turn toward it is treated by postwar policymakers as a cause of World War II.
Neutrality Acts (1935–1939)	Laws banning arms exports and loans to belligerent nations; progressively loosened.
Cash and Carry	Policy permitting belligerents to buy US goods if they paid up front and transported the goods themselves.
Destroyers for Bases	September 1940 agreement transferring 50 US destroyers to Britain in exchange for US land rights in British territories.
Lend-Lease (1941)	Authority for the US to "lend" war materiel to other nations, with no genuine expectation of return.
Containment	Kennan's doctrine of long-term resistance to Soviet expansion, originally emphasizing non-military means; later militarized by NSC-68.
Long Telegram / X Article	Kennan's 1946 telegram (~8,000 words) and 1947 Foreign Affairs article laying out the sources of Soviet conduct and the logic of containment.

Term	Definition
NSC-68 (1950)	National Security Council document, principally authored by Paul Nitze, calling for a militarized containment strategy and large sustained defense buildup.
Truman Doctrine (1947)	Commitment to support free peoples resisting subjugation by armed minorities or outside pressure; foundation of postwar aid programs.
Marshall Plan / European Recovery Program	Large-scale US economic assistance to rebuild Europe, announced June 1947; Soviets invited and refused; catalyst for the OECD.
Percentages Agreement (1944)	Churchill–Stalin understanding dividing influence over Romania, Greece, Yugoslavia, Hungary, and Bulgaria.
Hegemony	A preponderance of global power.
Liberal internationalism / liberal hegemonic order	The postwar order built on US leadership with self-constraint, a rules-based system of global governance, and multilateral cooperation in security and economic affairs. "Liberal" in the classical sense.
Bretton Woods system	The postwar economic architecture: GATT (WTO from 1995), World Bank, and IMF.
Four Policemen	FDR's alternative postwar vision of great-power leadership (US, Britain, USSR, China) within spheres of influence.
Unipolar moment	The period after the Soviet collapse in which the US was the sole superpower.
Rogue states / Axis of Evil	The early War on Terror framing of Iran, Iraq, and North Korea as the principal state threats.
MIRV	Multiple Independently Targetable Reentry Vehicle—several warheads on a single missile, each far more destructive than the 1945 bombs.
Bipartisan consensus	The mid-century pattern of cross-party cooperation on foreign policy, associated with divided government, low polarization, and convergent economic interests.
Irreconcilables	Senate Republicans who opposed the Treaty of Versailles and the League of Nations outright.
Militarized Interstate Dispute (MID)	Correlates of War measure of interstate conflict short of, and including, war; used in lecture to track US conflict involvement over time.

People to Know

Person	Why They Matter
George Washington	Farewell Address: commercial engagement, political non-entanglement.
Alexander Hamilton	Industrialization, a strong central government, strong fiscal and monetary capacity—one pole of the founding-era factional divide.
Thomas Jefferson	The agrarian, weak-central-government vision—yet Jefferson dramatically expanded executive power through the Barbary deployments and the Louisiana Purchase.
James Monroe	Monroe Doctrine, 1823.
Andrew Jackson	President; threatened force during the Nullification Crisis.
John L. O'Sullivan	Coined Manifest Destiny, 1845.
Thomas Catesby	Capture of Monterey, 1842.

Person	Why They Matter
Theodore Roosevelt	Roosevelt Corollary; "Big Stick" in the Caribbean.
Woodrow Wilson	Fourteen Points; League of Nations; defeated in the Senate.
Henry Cabot Lodge	Leading Republican opponent of the Treaty of Versailles; opposed multilateralism and feared loss of sovereignty. Also personally hated Wilson—the lecture's example of a case turning on individual personality.
Elihu Root / Theodore Roosevelt	The internationalist Republican wing favoring arbitration and legal mechanisms for international disputes.
Henry L. Stimson	Republican internationalist; Secretary of War under FDR and Truman; shaped the atomic decision and the target list; symbol of bipartisan appointment.
Franklin D. Roosevelt	Four Policemen; wartime diplomacy; dies April 12, 1945.
Harry S. Truman	Truman Doctrine; atomic decision; postwar order-building.
George C. Marshall	Secretary of State; Marshall Plan.
George F. Kennan	Long Telegram; X Article; non-military containment; opposed NATO.
Paul Nitze	NSC-68; militarized containment.
Arthur Vandenberg	Republican Senate Foreign Relations chair whose conversion secured bipartisan support for Truman's policies.
James Byrnes	Secretary of State 1945–1947.
Walter White and Thurgood Marshall	NAACP leaders engaged in early US human rights policy and UN posture.
Dean Acheson	Secretary of State. "He might be a son of a bitch, but he's our son of a bitch"—on Tito; a deliberate attempt to exploit the split inside the Soviet sphere.
Saddam Hussein / George H.W. Bush	Gulf War, 1990–1991.
Deng Xiaoping	Chinese market reforms of the 1980s leading toward WTO accession in 2001—one of the most consequential transitions of the post-Cold War era.
Thomas Schelling	Deterrence theorist; the "threat that leaves something to chance."

9. Timeline

Date	Event
1783	Treaty of Paris ends the war with Great Britain
1796	Washington's Farewell Address
1803	Louisiana Purchase ($15 million)
1807 / 1808	Britain abolishes the slave trade in the Empire / US outlaws the international slave trade
1812–1815	War of 1812; British burn Washington, D.C. in 1814
1821	Mexican independence; John Quincy Adams's Independence Day address
1823	Monroe Doctrine

Date	Event
1828 / 1832–33	Tariff of 1828; Nullification Crisis and the compromise tariff of 1833
1835–1836	Texas Revolution
1841	Creole case
1842	Capture of Monterey
1845	Texas admitted by joint resolution; "Manifest Destiny" coined
1846–1848	Mexican–American War
1861–1865	US Civil War
1870s	US economy surpasses Great Britain
1893	Turner delivers the frontier thesis
1898	Spanish–American War; annexation of Hawaii
1917	US enters World War I; Russian Revolution; US troops sent to Russia
1918	Wilson's Fourteen Points
1919	Treaty of Versailles; League of Nations created; Senate rejects the treaty (twice)
1922 / 1930	Washington Naval Conference / London Naval Conference
October 29, 1929	Stock market crash; worldwide depression
1931	Japan occupies Manchuria
1933	Hitler comes to power
1935–1939	Neutrality Acts
1936–1937	German, Italian, and Japanese treaties
1938	Annexation of Austria (March); Sudetenland (September)
September 3, 1939	Germany invades Poland; Britain and France declare war. Molotov–Ribbentrop Pact signed earlier that year
1940	France falls (July); Battle of Britain begins (August); Destroyers for Bases (September)
March 1941	Lend-Lease
December 7–8, 1941	Pearl Harbor; bombing of US positions in the Philippines
1944	Percentages Agreement (Fourth Moscow Conference); Warsaw Uprising
April 12, 1945	Roosevelt dies; Truman takes office
May 8, 1945	Nazi Germany surrenders to the Allies
August 6 / 9 / 14, 1945	Hiroshima; Nagasaki; Japanese surrender
1946	Kennan's Long Telegram; Britain informs the US it cannot sustain aid to Greece and Turkey; Iran before the Security Council; National Negro Congress petition (June 6); Republicans win the 80th Congress
March 1947	Truman Doctrine speech
June 1947	Marshall's Harvard address

Date	Event
1947	Kennan's X Article in Foreign Affairs
1948	Communist coup in Czechoslovakia; Yugoslav–Soviet split
1949	Communist victory in China; USSR detonates an atomic bomb; NATO founded
1950	NSC-68; Chinese–Soviet alliance; Korean War begins
1953	Korean War ends
1954	Brown v. Board of Education (Dudziak)
1989	Berlin Wall falls
August 2, 1990 – 1991	Iraq invades Kuwait; UN authorization November 29, 1990; withdrawal deadline January 15, 1991; Gulf War
1995	GATT becomes the WTO
2001	China joins the WTO; September 11 attacks; invasion of Afghanistan (October)
2003	Invasion of Iraq (March)

10. Practice Questions

10.1 Identification

For each, be able to give the what, the when, and—most importantly—the significance in one or two sentences.

1. Mercantilism
2. The Monroe Doctrine
3. The Creole case
4. The Ordinance of Nullification
5. Manifest Destiny
6. The Roosevelt Corollary
7. The Irreconcilables
8. The Washington Naval Conference
9. Lend-Lease
10. The Long Telegram
11. NSC-68
12. The Percentages Agreement
13. The Marshall Plan
14. Bretton Woods
15. The 80th Congress
16. Arthur Vandenberg
17. The unipolar moment
18. Deterrence

19. The security dilemma
20. The Axis of Evil

10.2 Short Answer

1. Washington's Farewell Address is routinely cited as a call for isolationism. Explain why that reading is imprecise, and state what the Address actually recommends.
2. The Monroe Doctrine appears on both sides of the 1898 expansion debate. Reconstruct each use.
3. Explain why the decision to use atomic weapons against Japan cannot be fully understood as a decision about Japan alone.
4. Kennan opposed NATO. Given that he authored containment, explain his reasoning.
5. What did Ikenberry mean in arguing that the US had to constrain its own behavior to sustain the order it built? Give one concrete example of such constraint.
6. Why did divided government after 1946 promote rather than obstruct foreign policy cooperation?
7. Describe the sequence from the Neutrality Acts to Lend-Lease, and explain what it reveals about executive–legislative relations in foreign policy.
8. Why did the US government work to weaken the UN Commission on Human Rights' petition procedures in the late 1940s?
9. State Fordham's central finding about party positions on military spending, and identify the mechanism he proposes.
10. Explain what "hegemony" means as used in this course, and what it does NOT mean.
11. Define deterrence and explain why credibility is essential to it. What does Schelling mean by a "threat that leaves something to chance"?
12. Explain how the shift from sail to steam-powered ironclads helps account for the growth of overseas American military bases.
13. Why does the lecture warn against treating the assassination of Archduke Franz Ferdinand, or the sinking of the Lusitania, as the cause of a war?
14. Why does it matter that Correlates of War MID data count only disputes between nation-states? What does that omission do to our picture of nineteenth-century US behavior?
15. Explain why the claim that World War II ended the Great Depression is both inaccurate and, in the lecture's view, dangerous.

10.3 Essay

1. The lecture divides US foreign policy into four periods. Choose the transition you think is the most consequential—1870, 1945, or the post-2025 transition now underway—and defend your choice. What changes at that boundary, and what persists across it?
2. "American foreign policy has always been shaped more by domestic economic interests than by external threats." Evaluate this claim using evidence from at least two of the following: the Nullification Crisis, the 1898 expansion debate, the formation of the Cold War bipartisan consensus, and its apparent collapse.
3. Was the collapse of the Cold War foreign policy consensus caused by Vietnam and the end of the Soviet threat, or by the evolution of domestic coalition interests? Present the strongest version of each argument and then adjudicate between them, drawing on Fordham and on the lecture material.

4. Using Dudziak, and the material on Byrnes, the NAACP, and the UN human rights machinery, assess the following claim: during the early Cold War, American domestic racial practice was a foreign policy problem before it was a domestic political one. What does your answer imply about the relationship between international pressure and domestic reform?
5. Compare Kennan's containment with the version articulated in NSC-68. What did each assume about the sources of Soviet behavior, and what did each imply about the kind of state the US would have to become? Which better describes what the US actually did?
6. The US built an order it described as rules-based, multilateral, and committed to self-determination—while simultaneously intervening in Latin America, maintaining segregation at home, and moving to weaken international human rights machinery. Is this hypocrisy, strategy, or the ordinary condition of a hegemonic power? Argue a position using specific evidence from the unit.
7. Trace the idea that commerce produces peace from the early republic through the Bretton Woods system. Where does that idea come from, who has believed it and why, and what evidence in this unit supports or undermines it?
8. The lecture presents the geography of defense spending—Roosevelt siting bases in the South, the stickiness of those bases, and the spread of defense dollars across congressional districts—as a material explanation for party positions. Assess how much of the story this mechanism can carry, and what it leaves unexplained.
9. The unit ends by asking whether the current treatment of trade as zero-sum and tariffs as leverage represents an aberration or a new normal. Using the full arc of the course—from mercantilism through Bretton Woods—make the case for one reading.
10. Repeatedly in this unit, actors face a choice between stated principles and material interests: Jefferson on executive power, Britain on slavery and the Confederacy, the US on human rights machinery at the UN. Is there a pattern in how such conflicts get resolved? What would it take to show that principles ever constrain policy?

11. Common Pitfalls

- Treating "isolationism" as an accurate description of any period. The interwar US was commercially engaged and active in arms control while refusing institutional commitment; the early republic sought trade aggressively while avoiding alliances. Use the precise formulation instead.
- Treating containment as a single policy. Kennan and Nitze (and others) disagreed profoundly.
- Treating the large standing military, permanent alliances, and high defense spending as American traditions. Each is a post-1945 development, and the data in lecture are there to prove it.
- Treating slavery and civil rights as domestic topics that are separate from the foreign policy narrative. In this course they are direct foreign policy topics.
- Attributing party positions to fixed ideology. Both parties reversed themselves on trade and on military spending, and the explanation in each case is coalitional and economic.
- Repeating the claim that World War II ended the Great Depression. Recovery was underway before the war, and the belief carries the dangerous implication that war is a growth strategy.
- Explaining a war by its "spark." The archduke and the Lusitania were moments within a longer escalation, and in both cases war followed only after a considerable delay.
- Treating the communist bloc as monolithic. It was not, US policymakers described it as though it were, and that misreading shaped policy.
- Giving a date without a significance. On identifications, the significance is worth more than the date.
- All data tell us a story. Charts and specific values should are less important than the underlying information they convey.